

Routledge
Taylor & Francis Group

Third World Quarterly

ISSN: 0143-6597 (Print) 1360-2241 (Online) Journal homepage: https://www.tandfonline.com/loi/ctwq20

Outlook for the 'developing country' category: a paradox of demise and continuity

Déborah B. L. Farias

To cite this article: Déborah B. L. Farias (2019) Outlook for the 'developing country' category: a paradox of demise and continuity, Third World Quarterly, 40:4, 668-687, DOI: 10.1080/01436597.2019.1573139

To link to this article: https://doi.org/10.1080/01436597.2019.1573139

Published online: 18 Mar 2019.

Submit your article to this journal

Article views: 1106

View related articles

View Crossmark data

Citing articles: 7 View citing articles

Full Terms & Conditions of access and use can be found at
https://www.tandfonline.com/action/journalInformation?journalCode=ctwq20

THIRD WORLD QUARTERLY
2019, VOL. 40, NO. 4, 668–687
https://doi.org/10.1080/01436597.2019.1573139

Check for updates

Outlook for the 'developing country' category: a paradox of demise and continuity

Déborah B. L. Farias

University of New South Wales (UNSW), School of Social Sciences, Sydney, Australia

ABSTRACT

In the 2016 edition of its *World Development Indicators* (WDI), the World Bank introduced an important change in the way it categorises countries: it explicitly stated the intention to eliminate the distinction of countries as 'developing' and 'developed'. This decision represents the first time one of the world's most powerful and influential international organisation has overtly decided to move away from this fuzzy-yet-ubiquitous terminology for categorising countries (and not proposing to replace the division). This paper takes this shift to discuss country groupings based on development levels, particularly the 'developed'/'developing' dichotomy, focusing on the latter term. The paper argues for a paradoxical scenario, wherein the label 'developing' will increasingly become analytically useless while concurrently retaining – or even strengthening – its power in the context of foreign policy strategies. The analysis details the motives behind this paradox and provides a reasoning for when and why the term's usage is likely to be weakened or strengthened. Simply put, the 'developed'/'developing' dichotomy is weakening in its analytical capacity, mostly due to the increasing heterogeneity among countries under the 'developing' label and concurrent porosity of 'boundaries' between the two categories, while showing little sign of being phased as a term for self-identification.

ARTICLE HISTORY
Received 14 December 2017
Accepted 16 January 2019

KEYWORDS
Developing countries
categorisation
world bank
self-identification
foreign policy identity

Introduction

The 2016 edition of the World Bank's annual *World Development Indicators* (WDI) introduced an important change in the way countries are categorised. The report's preface explicitly stated the Bank's intention to no longer use the terminology 'developing' and 'developed' countries: 'Unless otherwise noted, *there is no longer a distinction between developing countries* (defined in previous editions as Low- and Middle-income countries) *and developed countries* (defined in previous editions as High-income countries)'.[1] While 'some users' might still adopt the categorisation – as stated in WDI's 2017 appendix – the Bank's stance is that the nomenclature is no longer worth even to be 'used for convenience', as stated in previous appendixes.[2]

The WDI report itself provided no justification for the change in nomenclature – but several recent World Bank documents had already alluded to the inadequacy of labelling countries within a binary framework. For example, the 2014 *World Bank Group Strategy* report

CONTACT Déborah B. L. Farias deborahblf@unsw.edu.au University of New South Wales (UNSW), School of Social Sciences, Randwick Campus, Sydney, Australia
© 2019 Global South Ltd

hinted at the institution's desire to move away from this terminology: 'As the traditional grouping of developing countries into income categories becomes less relevant, more attention is needed to the multiple facets of fragility and resilience across the income spectrum'.[3] In late 2015, two economists from the Bank's Development Data Group posed the question, 'Should we continue to use the term "developing world?"', with the suggestive answer that the WDI should *phase out the term*.[4] This discussion appeared again in early 2016, in a Policy Research Working Paper. Such concerns resonate with the understanding that 'ambiguous concepts make deceptive statistics'.[5]

Use of the term 'developing' – as well as synonyms such as 'Third World'[6] – has long been questioned and contested, and its impreciseness well acknowledged.[7] Nonetheless, it has remained pervasive in academia, policy and politics. What makes the World Bank's 2016 decision unique is that it represents the first time a powerful and influential international organisation, fully embedded in development discourse, overtly abandoned this fuzzy-yet-ubiquitous categorisation.

This paper takes the WDI's shift as a springboard to discuss the prospects for the 'developed' and 'developing' categorisation, with a focus on the latter term – and how it carries different meanings in different social contexts. It posits the evolution of a paradoxical scenario wherein the descriptor 'developing' becomes simultaneously useless *and* stronger, depending on who uses the label and why. On the one hand, the developing/developed dichotomy is weakening in its analytical capacity, mostly due to increasing heterogeneity among countries labelled 'developing' (especially the so-called 'emerging powers').[8] On the other hand, the term remains firmly embedded in a myriad of real-world operational purposes (e.g. access to preferential lending arrangement and trading schemes), whose wholesale overhaul would be neither simple nor quick. In addition, the 'developing country' label shows little sign of being phased out as a self-identifier and is in fact shored up by most emerging powers' interest in *reinforcing* their developing country identity, based on self-interest.

To advance this argument, the paper is divided into four sections. The first discusses the historical background of the 'developing'/'developed' country dichotomy. The following two sections explore the paradox itself: showing why the dichotomy is increasingly analytically useless, while explaining why the 'developing country' *identity* is far from obsolescence. The fourth section concludes the paper.

Developed/developing: origins of the dichotomy

It is difficult to identify who first introduced categorise countries as 'developing' or 'developed', or to pinpoint when. The idea of a world comprised of a few 'evolved' nations, along with a mass of 'unevolved' ones, has a long history. Building on the European imperial template of Christians-versus-barbarians, the idea of 'civilized nations' began to appear in the writings of philosophers and jurists in the eighteenth century.[9] Immanuel Kant's *Perpetual Peace* (1795), for example, references 'civilized' and 'savage' peoples.[10] 'Civilization' described 'the old Christian states of Western Europe', according to the father of modern international law, L. F. L. Oppenheim.[11] In the words of another important international law scholar of the late nineteenth century, it was the mission of 'civilized nations to promote the education, the guidance' and ultimately, 'the *civilization of savage peoples*'.[12]

Despite questioning, the 'civilized nation' status made its way to international arrangements such as the *General Act of the Berlin Conference* of 1885 and the Permanent Court of International Justice of 1922. Article 38(2) of latter's statute established 'the general principles of law recognised by *civilized* nations' (emphasis added) to be one its legal sources – a wording, embraced *ipsis litteris* by the International Court of Justice, that remains to this day.

In the nineteenth century, the word 'development' itself began to be used in a socioeconomic (as opposed to a legal or political) context, by scholars such as Marx, Lenin and Schumpeter, and was briefly alluded to in the 1920 *Charter of the League of Nations*.[13] Yet only in the 1940s was the word 'development' effectively transformed from a noun to an adjective, used to categorise countries (i.e. shifting from 'country X seeks [economic] development' to 'country X *is* [*not*] developed'). Initially, '*under*developed' was the label adopted to categorise countries considered not-developed, as used by US President Truman in his inaugural speech in 1949 (the infamous 'Point Four'). Over the years this label was replaced by 'develop*ing*'. As opposed to a stationary position of being (permanently) underdeveloped, the suffix '-ing' signalled a dynamic scenario, where developing countries could eventually *become* developed.

Throughout the Cold War, policymakers and academics embraced a growing number of terms for countries that were 'lagging behind'. The simplest was the descriptor *poor*. With time, other terms appeared and were incorporated to the development lexicon: 'less developed', 'non-industrialised', 'backwards', 'peripheral', etc. Still other terms were grounded in Cold War world power structures, such as the North–South division of the globe, and the grouping together of 'Third World' countries, as shown in Table 1.[14]

Despite all these coexisting terms and the pervasive lack of precise criteria for inclusion or exclusion, the 'developing' label embedded itself deepest in the global governance of development. A path-dependency perspective offers that 'civilized' countries were simply re-labelled 'developed'. The process of sorting countries into this category was relatively straightforward: important material differences among these and the 'developing' cohort was easy to discern, particularly when using socioeconomic indicators.

Generally, 'developing countries' have been seen as sharing many characteristics (see Table 1), with the historical conditions behind these common impairments being either overlooked or treated as internal and self-generated phenomena.[15] In terms of quality of

Table 1. 'Developed' vs. 'developing' countries: common synonyms and characteristics.

	'Developed'	'Developing' (or 'Underdeveloped')
Synonyms (commonly used)	Rich	Poor
	North	South
	Advanced (economy)	Backward (economy)
	First World	Third World
	Core	(Semi) Periphery
	Industrialised	Non-industrialised
Characteristics (commonly given)	High living standards	Low living standards
	High life expectancy	Low life expectancy
	Low birth rate & child mortality	High birth rate & child mortality
	High GDP per capita	Low GDP per capita
	Highly diversified industries	Low/no industrial diversification
	Technology exporter	Technology importer
	Donors of develop. assistance	Recipients of develop. assistance
	Mostly members of OECD	Mostly members of G77

living, 'developing countries' tend to be those with (relatively) low life expectancy, high fertility rates and high poverty levels. They are marked by low GDP per capita, with economies based mainly on primary commodity exports, with a small or non-existent industrial sector marked by low diversification. 'Developing countries' are also recipients of development assistance (foreign aid). Accordingly, 'developed' countries would typically overlap with 'rich' countries where, on average, citizens are (relatively) healthy, have access to education and food, live past their sixtieth birthday and have disposable income. Their economies are typically among the most robust in the world (measured in total GDP or GDP per capita).

Notwithstanding a few cases, until the mid-1970s the developed/developing dichotomy provided a somewhat accurate depiction of world. When the G7 was created in 1975, the income of its member countries – USA, UK, France, Germany, Japan, Italy and Canada – represented almost two-thirds of the global economy, with the US alone amassing 30% of the world's GDP (see Figure 1).[16] China was eighth in this world ranking, almost equal to Canada in total GDP; yet while Canada's GDP per capita was close to US$8,000, China's was a mere US$200 – just slightly better than India's US$190 (see Figures 1 and 2). There were already seven so-called 'developing countries' in the world's top 20 economies. In Figure 2, all of these are shown in the lower left quadrant, with relatively lower GDP and low GDP per capita.

A look at two key socioeconomic indicators – fertility rate and life expectancy – strengthens the perception of there being disparate 'worlds'. As depicted in Figure 3, within the top economies in 1975, there was a clear clustering of countries with (relatively) very low fertility rates and very high life expectancy (Spain being the only one slightly outside this tight cluster). These 'developed' countries (including Spain) had an average fertility rate of 1.92 births/woman and a life expectancy of 73 years. While the other members were not as clustered (aside from Argentina, with relatively better metrics), all 'developing' nations with high GDPs had fertility rates that were two to three times higher than the 'developed' average, and their citizens lived 10–20 years less.

However, these commonalities began to erode in the late 1970s. In that decade, high fuel prices saw oil-exporting nations' revenues soar, along with their GDP per capita. In 1980, for example, four of the five wealthiest countries (measured in GDP per capita) were

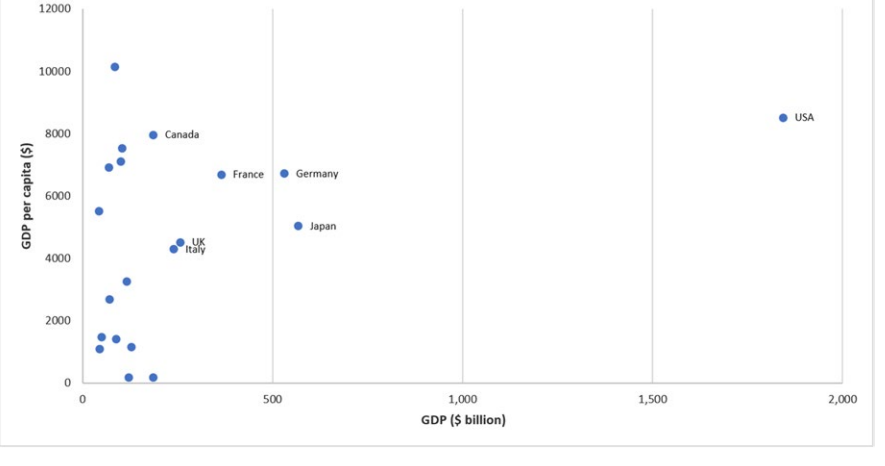


Figure 1. Top 20 largest economies (1975), top seven identified.

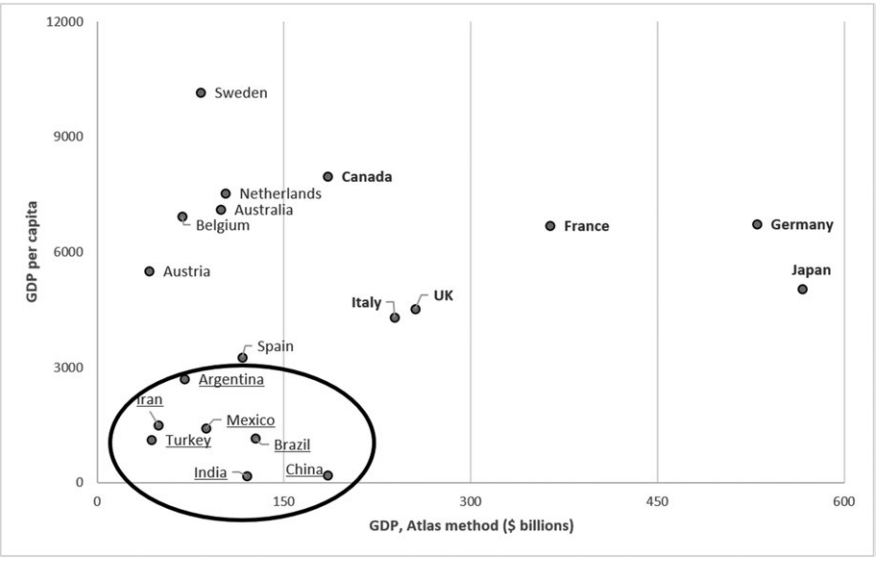


Figure 2. Top 20 largest economies (1975) (US excluded).

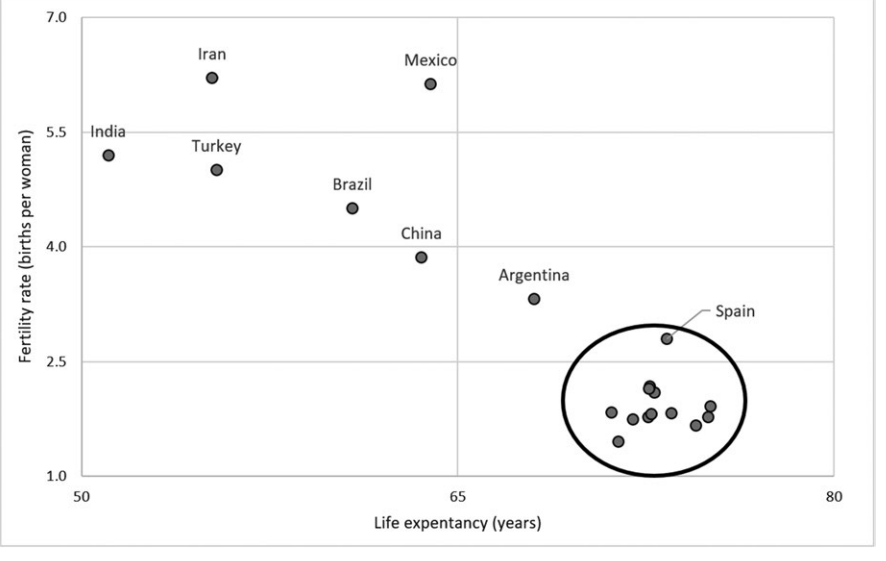


Figure 3. Fertility rate and life expectancy top 20 largest economies (1975).

oil-exporting nations (the lone exception being Monaco ranked at #1). The per capita GDP of the United Arab Emirates (ranked at #2) was *four times* that of the UK, while Qatar's (at #3) was almost three times that of Belgium, France or the US. Still, these high incomes were not enough to propel these oil-producing nations into 'developed' status. Their economies remained reliant on exports of a single primary commodity, with no significant improvement in industrial diversification, technology development or socioeconomic indicators.

In the 1980s, the 'Asian Tigers' (Hong Kong, Singapore, South Korea and Taiwan) also began challenging the developed/developing categorisation. By 1990, Hong Kong's GDP per capita

(Atlas method) was only 2.5% smaller than Spain's, and the country ranked third in the world in life expectancy. That same year, Singapore and South Korea ranked sixth and ninth, respectively, in high-tech exports: the former sporting higher numbers than the Netherlands or Italy, and the latter surpassing Canada. Still, these cases were generally taken as unique; they did not signal transcendence of the boundaries between 'developed' and 'developing'. Since the 2000s, though, the global economy has experienced deeper structural changes, helping to catalyse the World Bank's discontinuation of the categorisation.

The demise of the 'developing country' category

The grouping of countries based on their development status has reflected a multidimensional approach to classification (exemplified in Table 1), creating a twofold exclusionary taxonomy: a country is either 'developed' or 'developing'. Yet while it has become commonplace to treat this picture of a two-tier world as if it reflected reality, the division has always been precariously constructed – if not altogether baseless. As well posited by Nielsen, 'when it comes to classifying countries according to their level of development, there is no criterion (either grounded in theory or based on an objective benchmark) that is *generally accepted*'.[17]

Of course, any classification system is bound to have advantages and disadvantages. The main analytical benefit of the one under discussion is complexity reduction – yet even parsimony has not saved the developed/developing classification from increasing challenges to its analytic utility. Two concomitant phenomena, over the past 20 years, have impacted that perceived usefulness: (1) the maximisation of intergroup variance (among 'developing countries') and (2) minimisation of intragroup variance. This is precisely the opposite of what one expects in a soundly-constructed classification.

Loss of analytical capacity due to maximisation of intragroup variance

There has always been heterogeneity within both 'developed' and 'developing' groups of countries. However, the variation in economic and social indicators among the latter – a much bigger group – has always been stronger than within the former. Since the late 1950s, several subcategories within the 'developing' group (many non-exclusionary) have been adopted by international and global organisations, such as the United Nations, World Bank and World Trade Organization (WTO). For example: Landlocked Developing Countries (LLDCs), created in 1957; the Least Developing Countries (LDCs), a term unfurled in 1971; Small Island Developing Countries (SIDS), which emerged in 1994; Heavily Indebted Poor Countries (HIPCs), seen first in 1996; in 2001, Lower Income Countries Under Stress (LICUS); and 2007's Structurally Weak, Vulnerable and Small Economies (SWVSE). While the proliferation of developing country classifications is undeniable,[18] practically all subcategories show a focus on countries with relatively worse indicators and/or specific challenges to development, with not as much attention to the 'better-off'.

Increasing economic heterogeneity among 'developing countries' can be mapped by looking at the World Bank's traditional subdivision into three categories (Upper-middle-, Lower-middle- and Low-income countries), then comparing how incomes within each category have risen. Taking 1990 as a baseline year (as the first available for measurement of national income in PPP terms) and comparing it to 2016, an absolute and relative divergence in the three groups' income becomes apparent (see Figure 4).

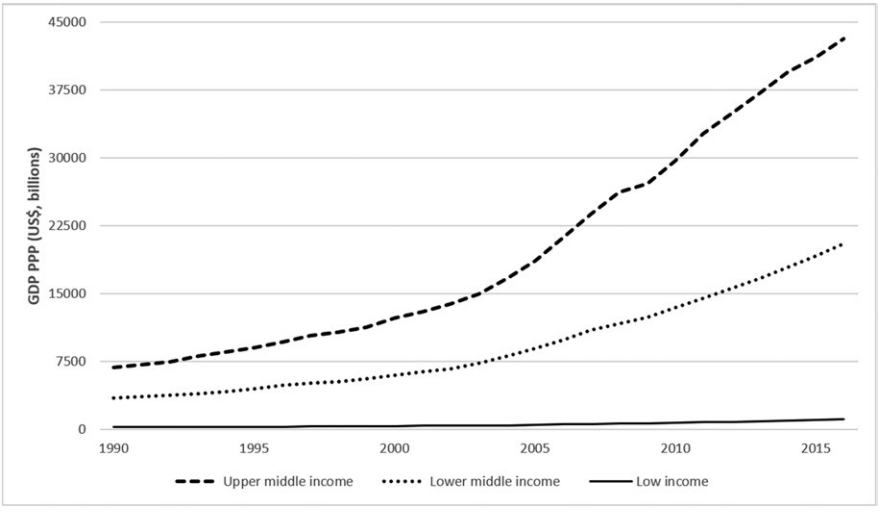


Figure 4. Aggregate GDP (PPP): Upper-middle-, Lower-middle-, Low-income countries.

Low income countries' total GDP (PPP) rose from US$238 billion to US$1.1 trillion, yet this increase pales in comparison to the aggregate numbers for Upper- and Lower-middle-income countries, the former of which grew from little over US$6.8 trillion (1990) to almost US$43.2 trillion (2016), and the latter from US$3.5 trillion (1990) to US$20.5 trillion (2016).

Paralleling this shift has been a change in the map of global poverty. In the 1990s, 93% of poor people – i.e. those living under US$1.25/day – lived in Low-income countries; two decades later, only 24–29% of the world's poor lived in the 35 nations so labelled.[19] This reflects the 'graduation' of countries with large absolute numbers of poor from Low-income to Middle-income countries, notably: China, India, Pakistan, Nigeria and Indonesia. What this 'new geography of global poverty' means, among other things, is that most of the world's poorest people do *not* live in the poorest countries.[20]

Loss of analytical capacity due to minimisation of intergroup variance

Since the early 2000s, there has been a significant decrease in coherence within the set of traditional characteristics used to distinguish 'developing' from 'developed' countries. The current scenario is one wherein a significant number of entities are labelled 'developing' while sharing a growing number of 'developed'-country features. At the same time, many 'developed' countries have been experiencing certain socioeconomic challenges typically associated with 'developing countries', such as poverty and inequality.

One of the traditional key attributes of 'developing countries' is high levels of poverty, both in absolute and relative terms. However, since the late 1990s, the engine of the world economy has moved from the traditionally wealthy OECD countries to developing and emerging ones, in what has been called the 'shifting wealth'.[21] In 1990, the aggregate wealth (GDP, PPP) of all Middle- and Low-income countries was just slightly above half of that of High-income countries: US$10.5 trillion versus US$18.22 trillion. By 2016 that figure was completely different, with the former surpassing the latter's total wealth by almost 20%: US$64.66 trillion versus US$55.58 trillion.

The G7 countries no longer dominate the world's economy: in 2016, G7 economies represented less than one-third of the world's GDP (PPP), at 31.1%. With a GDP (PPP) of US$21.4

trillion, China has surpassed the US' economy (US$18.6 trillion), with India (US$8.7 trillion) coming in third, followed by Germany (US$4 trillion), Japan (US$5.3 trillion) and Russia (US$3.4 trillion). While this phenomenon has been strongly influenced by enormous growth in China and India's GDP, it has not been limited to these two countries. A picture of the world's wealthiest countries in 2016 (GDP, PPP-adjusted) was one in which Brazil (at #7) was ranked higher than France (at #10); the UK (at #9) was behind Indonesia (at #8); and Mexico's GDP (at #12) was only 1.5% smaller than Italy's (at #11). The average per capita income (based on GDP, PPP-adjusted) of High-income countries is still undeniably higher than for countries in other income categories. However, on average, the numbers are becoming much less disparate: in 1990, Upper-middle-income countries' average income per capita (US$3358) was roughly one-sixth that of High-income countries (US$18,273); in 2016, this difference was one-third – the former's US$16,746 versus the latter's US$46,704. At the same time, life expectancy and fertility rates are no longer firm indicators of 'development'. As depicted in Figures 5A and B, in 1960 only 30 countries had fertility rates below three children/woman; in 2014, this was the reality for 128 nations. Conversely, while in 1960 there were 130 countries with fertility rates equal to or above five, in 2014 that number had decreased to merely 20. In 2014, 105 of the UN's 191-member countries had fertility rates below 2.5 and life expectancies of 70 years or higher. At the same time, the countries with the worst indicators – more than four births/woman and life expectancies below 65 years – were few and largely concentrated in Sub-Saharan Africa (SSA). A mere 36 countries in the world fit this profile, with only Afghanistan and Yemen lying outside of SSA. Therefore, while some countries still fit the traditional picture of a 'developing' nation, with regard to these two criteria most of them now look more like 'developed' countries.

The gap between the rich and poor in 'advanced' economies is growing. [22] According to former US President Barack Obama, widening income inequality is 'the defining challenge of our time'.[23] Since the mid-1980s, average inequality in OECD members has risen by almost 10%, with the shift being more pronounced among the 1% of earners in English-speaking countries.[24] It remains true that countries typically labelled 'developed' do not have to deal with vast numbers of people living in absolute poverty (e.g. less than US$1.90/day). However,

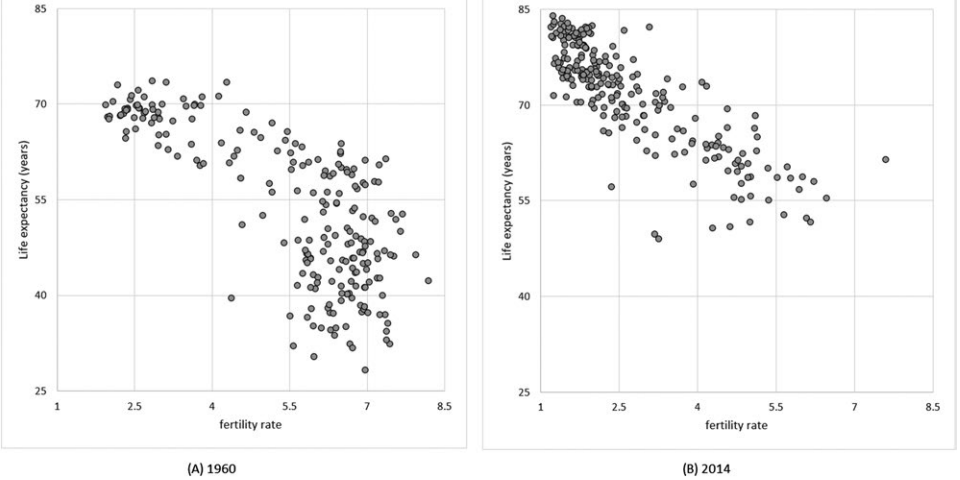


Figure 5. (A) and (B). Life expectancy and fertility rates.

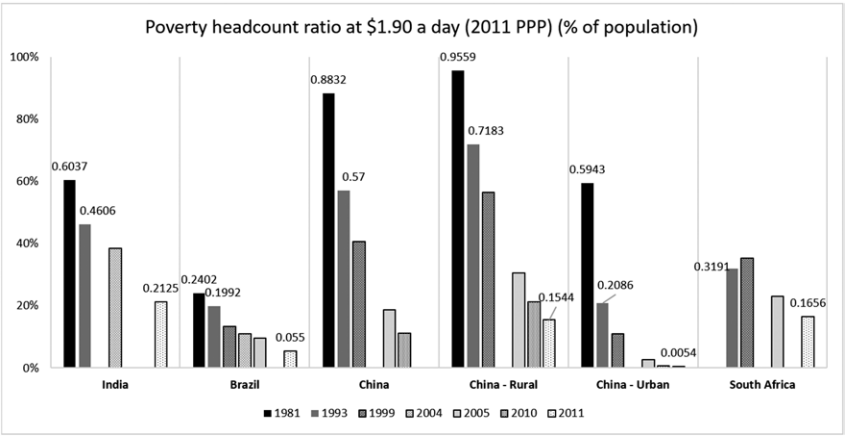


Figure 6. Poverty headcount ratio at US$1.90 a day (2011 PPP).

the share of those living in *relative* poverty – i.e. below each country's own poverty line – has increased in the past decades.[25] For example, in 2014, approximately 47 million people (15% of the total population) and one in every five children in the US lived below the government's official poverty threshold.[26] The relative income gap worsened in 20 of 31 European countries between 2008 and 2013. In 2014, the risk of poverty or social exclusion affected 24.4% of the EU's population.[27]

On the other hand, the poverty numbers of some 'developing countries' have improved significantly in both absolute and relative terms, as visible in Figure 6. Many 'developing countries' have experienced *declining* inequality, although pervasive inequities in access to education, health care and financing remain.[28] According to Credit Suisse,[29] globally the wealth of those above the Lower-middle-class threshold has more than doubled; in Africa, it has grown by 140% and in India by 280%, while China has experienced a six-fold increase.

Ultimately, countries typically labelled 'developed' tend to have more total wealth and, on average, much larger portions of the population living with more disposable income and a better quality of life than in typically labelled 'developing' countries. What has changed is that now a significant number of these same countries have become increasingly concerned about *domestic* poverty and inequality – problems traditionally attached to 'developing countries'. At the same time, many so-called 'developing countries' (e.g. China, India, Brazil, Indonesia and Mexico) have seen significant growth in the absolute and relative number of their citizens with disposable income. As argued, the lines separating 'developed' and 'developing countries' are increasingly blurring: 'As the traditional grouping of developing countries into income categories becomes less relevant, more attention is needed to the multiple facets of fragility and resilience across the income spectrum'.[30]

The continuity of the 'developing country' category

The previous section highlighted the growing analytical frailty of dividing the world into exclusive categories of 'haves' and 'have-nots'. There is a growing disconnect within the set of indicators typically used to separate 'developing' from 'developed' countries, which has systematically weakened this dichotomy.

This section will show that, despite all the above-mentioned problems with treating 'developing' as a category of scholarly analysis, the label is far from disappearing. From a practical standpoint, even if such categorisation is inefficient, it is locked-in to a significant number of international agreements. The base-text for the *2030 Agenda for Sustainable Development*, for example, refers to 'developing country' as a unit more than 50 times. Clarity about which countries belong to the category is lacking, even though some goals set different expectations for 'developed' and 'developing countries'.[31]

The dichotomy is also embedded in academic textbooks, policy parlance and colloquial language. Changing the current nomenclature in these fields is achievable but will take time. In the case of legal documents, the bar is set much higher, leading to a broader question: is shifting the terminology, and dismantling the dichotomy, really worth the trouble? Ultimately, the perception of a high cost to this switch contributes to the longevity of certain structures – such as a continued use of said dichotomy – even if they have proven inadequate.[32] However, path-dependency is not the best explanation for the persistence of the 'developing country' category. As the next subsections will show, self-identifying 'developing countries' might be the greatest defenders of the label (and its common synonyms), as they can find strength in *being* such an entity.

'Developing country' as a foreign policy identity

Categories – and the identities that can emerge from them – are 'more than merely markers of distribution of material power identity'.[33] Intentionally or not, the process of categorising countries can produce material and symbolic consequences. Recognising these implications helps to understand the reasons for a country (1) to want to change how it is categorised, as well as (2) to remain attached to a category even if the 'fit' is inadequate. Belonging or not to a category – 'developed', 'LDC', 'DAC donor', 'emerging', etc. – can yield very concrete impacts, for example: the amount a country is expected to pay to an international organisation; a country's eligibility to receive development assistance; credit-worthiness with the international financial market, including volume and availability of loans and interest rates, etc.

At the same time, there are intangible implications from categorisations. No less important, they can affect how countries perceive themselves and each other. Countries sometimes embrace certain categorisations as part of their own *identity* and foreign policy discourse. Identities are 'among the most normatively and behaviorally consequential aspects of politics'.[34] 'European', 'Emerging' and 'Third World' are examples of categories that have transcended their initial origins and become identity markers on their own. This fusion of categorisation-identity can be an example of Onuf's understanding that 'unintended consequences frequently form stable patterns with respect to their effect on agents'.[35]

The 'developing country' label can (and has) been embraced as an identity marker. As previously alluded to, the separation of the world into 'developed' and 'developing' nations appeared in the same historical context as other dichotomies essentially separating the 'haves' from the 'have-nots': 'North/South', 'core/periphery' and 'First/Third' worlds. Methodological critiques of categorisation boundaries exist, but do not have the power shift a country's identity discourse. Writing in the mid-1970s, Rosenbaum and Tyler discussed how, since 1950, 'Third World spokesmen […] have claimed repeatedly that their countries share a common culture, one derived from poverty and exploitation'.[36] Four decades after

this account, the discourse of a 'shared vision' remains: notwithstanding their current wealth, China, India and Brazil, for example, all continue to utilise the terminology of 'South' and 'developing'.

A country whose foreign policy identity is entangled with or hinges on the idea of being a 'developing' entity is likely to reaffirm this category's existence. Thus, terms and divisions are relevant political constructions. States consciously hold on to them as core elements of their domestic and foreign policy discourses. A country's choice to embrace the 'developing' moniker serves as a signal of where it stands internationally, where it sees itself belonging and who its 'natural' peers might be. Therefore, despite questionable definitional boundaries, if countries continue to identify themselves as 'developing', 'South', 'periphery' or 'Third World', the categories remain powerful referents. Two examples illustrate this dynamic.

The first example involves the Group of 77 (G77). Established in 1964 with 77 countries (now has 134 members), it was built based around the idea of 'developing' countries coming together to promote their collective economic interests within the UN system.[37] Thus, membership to this group is as a visible marker of self-identifying as a 'developing' country – it is part of the organisation's *raison d'etre*.[38] When G77 membership is taken as proxy for 'developing' country identity it reveals two reinforcing points: (1) stability, as very few countries have chosen to no longer embrace such label, and (2) strength, since the number of self-identifying 'developing' countries almost doubled since the organisation was created. So far, only five countries have withdrawn from the organisation: Mexico, South Korea, Cyprus, Malta and Romania. While the first two removed themselves in parallel to joining the OECD, the latter three did so when entering the EU. Since neither the OECD or EU demanded withdrawal from the G77 as an entry condition (nor was it demanded *from* the G77), these decisions were based on each country's own foreign policy calculations.

In parallel, while the economically strongest 'developing' countries – China, Brazil, India, South Africa – are no longer leaders in the G77 (since the 2000s), they continue to demonstrate a 'practical solidarity with the group'.[39] Brazil poses an interesting case since it is currently pushing forward its membership bid to the OECD. At a first glance, Brazil's move appears to a rupture in the country's 'South'-based foreign policy promoted by Presidents Luis Inácio 'Lula' da Silva (2003–2010) and Dilma Rousseff (2011–2016) – both members of the leftist Worker's Party (*Partido dos Trabalhadores* – PT) – and a desire for greater 'Northern'-affinity by President Michel Temer. However, this interpretation leaves out at least two important facts. First, the active push for a closer and denser relationship between Brazil and the OECD began during President Rousseff's tenure. Brazil's full membership status could therefore be seen as another chapter in its relations with the OECD, as opposed to an altogether new 'book'. The other fact is the absence of any indication that Brazil will leave the G77 if it joins the OECD.[40] Thus, it appears that Brazil's self-interest calculation is akin to Chile (and not Mexico): membership to the two organisations does not have to be mutually exclusive, and a country can still choose to self-identify as 'developing' while being an OECD member.

Development assistance provides a second good example of the strategic use of a 'developing country' identity. The long-time paradigm here has been: 'developed' countries give aid and 'developing countries' receive it.[41] This is no longer the case. This change has contributed to a questioning of a world divided into aid donors and aid recipients, entangling ever more debates over what it means to be 'developing' and creating unexpected, if not ironic, situations – as noted by a British newspaper headline in 2011: 'It's nuts! Britain is STILL giving aid to Brazil – even though it's richer than we are'.[42] Simply put, being a development

assistant donor is no longer synonymous with being a 'developed' country, and the terms should not be so conflated.

The evolution of countries from *net recipients* to *net donors* is a central component of the wider realignment of global aid. Just over a decade ago, the clear majority of aid still came from a small group of the OECD's Development Assistance Committee (DAC) members.[43] Since the 2000s, though, a growing number of 'developing countries' have become important providers of development assistance. So-called 'emerging' donors have become providers of a growing number of development initiatives, in some cases supplying (relatively) high amounts of financial commitment and sharing innovative knowledge. Assistance offered by more established donors – especially after the end of the Cold War – has become less generous and less attractive at the same time that provisions from 'strong' developing countries have become more generous and more attractive.[44] This is because such 'emerging' donors (claim to) abide by the normative South–South Cooperation (SSC) paradigm, explicitly rejecting conditionalities and unwaveringly self-identifying as a 'developing countries' in their initiatives.[45]

China, India, Brazil and South Africa are among the most important of these 'emerging' donors, and their development assistance choices are key to understanding the strategies of rising powers in the twenty-first century's international system.[46] For many authors, the ascendancy of these countries as 'donors' is part of a broader shift in the global economic order, with power moving from OECD countries towards the 'Global South'.[47] China's self-identification as a 'developing country' is a powerful example of this phenomenon. The country's profile page in the UN Office for South–South Cooperation states: '*As a developing country,* China has always regarded the relations with the developing countries the *cornerstone of its foreign policy*.[48] The same idea appears on the WTO site: 'China is still a developing country'.[49] Yet another instance was China's official stance on the Copenhagen Climate Summit, where it officially positioned itself as 'the largest developing country':[50] '*As a developing country*, China firmly upheld the principle of "common but differentiated responsibilities", steadfastly defended the development rights and interests of the vast number of developing countries and unswervingly safeguarded their unity and coordination'.[51]

Of course, just because a country self-identifies as 'developing' does not automatically mean other countries will recognise it as such. From a Realist-Constructivist standpoint, this can be interpreted as a strategy of accentuating differences between the SSC approach and that of Western/Northern donors,[52] while also trying to mitigate the uncomfortable overlap between (principled) horizontality and (real) asymmetry. In other words, the purposeful embrace of the 'developing country' identity is a means to retain/expand power in the international system. As an inherently social phenomenon, identity is intersubjective: it concerns the ways in which actors view themselves and the self in relationship with others.[53]

Because of these social and relational aspects, identities may be contingent, dependent on the country's interaction with others and place within an institutional context.[54] This is ubiquitous in international relations, as countries highlight certain elements of their identity to build and strengthen cooperation, leverage their positions in negotiations, claim legitimacy to belong in certain international decision-making processes, among many other reasons. This is of particular importance in the case of 'emerging countries' (China, India, Brazil, etc.) and some OECD members (Chile, Mexico, Turkey and South Korea, for example). Self-identification only goes so far when intersubjectivity is a requirement. This only

reinforces the term's importance: if a country's 'developing' identity is accepted (or questioned) by other self-identified 'developing countries', there is a social understanding that this identity *exists* in the first place.

Locked-in advantages of being a 'developing country'

Along with a strategic choice to embrace the 'developing' label as a foreign policy identity, there are potential *legal* advantages of keeping oneself under the 'developing' label. Over the years, many entities – international organisation, country, NGO, etc – have put in place a structure that confers explicit advantages or special treatment to 'developing' countries. For example, the International Finance Corporation (IFC), a member of the World Bank Group, who presents itself as 'largest global development institution focused exclusively on the private sector in developing countries',[55] and whose first requirement for proposed projects is that they 'be located in a developing country that is a member of IFC'.[56] Also, the United Nations Framework Convention on Climate Change's (UNFCCC) system of different obligations for 'Annex I/II' and 'non-Annex' countries makes it advantageous for countries to remain claiming a 'developing' status. After all, only 'Annex II' countries (industrialised OECD countries as per 1992) are 'required to provide financial resources to enable developing countries to undertake emissions reduction activities under the Convention'.[57] But the most interesting situation concerns the WTO. This case, more than any other, vividly illustrates the locked-in advantages of being a 'developing country'.

Being a 'developing country' in the WTO has meaningful and tangible implications: such countries are entitled to certain unique rights. The organisation's 'special and differential treatment' given to 'developing countries' includes, inter alia: longer transition periods for implementing agreements and commitments; measures to increase trading opportunities and requirements for safeguarding trade interests; technical assistance to effectively navigate the multilateral trading system; and special legal advisors for 'developing countries' involved in WTO disputes.

Despite variations in special and differential treatment, only 'developing countries' can be beneficiaries of preferential trade treatments. This is contrary to one of the original pillars of the General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT), the precursor entity to the WTO. The GATT's core goal was to foment international trade based upon equal and non-discriminatory treatment among all members. As it stood in the 1948 founding text, the Most-Favored Nation (MFN) clause forbade non-reciprocal trade preferences in favour of any country. However, by 1957, GATT members were aware of 'the failure of the trade of less developed countries to develop as rapidly as that of industrialised countries',[58] and sought solutions to this situation. In 1958, the concept of 'development' first entered the GATT agenda through the *Haberler Report*.[59] In 1964, GATT's new Part IV, focusing exclusively on trade and development, was adopted, followed by the 'Enabling Clause' of 1970.[60] These legal adaptations allowed for the preferential treatment, by 'developed' countries, of 'developing countries'.

During the transition period from the GATT to the WTO, there was no challenge to countries' statuses: all existing GATT members claiming 'developing' status were automatically incorporated to the WTO as such.[61] Self-identification has remained the criterion for separating 'developed' from 'developing countries' ever since these differential rights were introduced. A country self-identifying as 'developing' within the WTO will lose tariff privileges if

it decides to revoke this position. Such arrangements make the prospect of forfeiting self-identification as 'developing' materially onerous, and likely to engender domestic opposition from sectors benefiting from existing trade preferences.

Given the concrete gains that accrue under the 'developing' label, unless other (and greater) advantages were at play, it is difficult to imagine the WTO's 'developing countries' supporting an overhaul of special and differentiated treatment they receive within the organisation. This helps to explain why countries such as China, India and Brazil have little interest in shifting this particular status quo, let alone countries with even less bargaining power vis-à-vis their wealthier counterparts. Overlapping with the previous sub-section, a 'developing country' identity within the WTO has fostered a particular approach to self-positioning taken by key self-identified 'developing countries', as highlighted by Efstathopoulos:[62]

> Brazil and India are disposed to exercise assertive leadership [in the WTO] only when that accommodates the expectations and preferences of their followership in the global South. Their preoccupation with constantly reasserting their Third World image often renders blocking agreement the preferable strategy to avoid paying a high price in terms of legitimacy.

Ultimately, change is difficult within the WTO structure, since modifications in its legal arrangements require consensus. Yet, if new legal agreements are sensitive to differentiated obligations, it would make sense to follow more nuanced identification pathways. This could mean, for example, focusing on categories such as Least Developed Countries, or countries below a certain threshold of particular criteria. Still, as of now, it is unlikely powerful 'developing countries' would be supportive of changes to eliminate their existing advantages.

Conclusion

Translating abstract ideal-type categories into concrete real-life ones constitute a longstanding challenge to policymakers and academics. Within this context, determining the proper threshold for labelling a country as 'developed' or 'developing' has been subject to questioning almost since the terms first came into use. What is new about the World Bank's decision to abandon this nomenclature was its choice to move away from the traditional dichotomy, while not attempting to institute a 'better' or newer development-centred divide.

Few would challenge the claim that a small group of countries continues to outperform the remainder in economic and social assessments. However, the commonalities that were more apparent in the early years of the Cold War – high income (absolute and per capita), high quality of life, low birth rate, industrialised economy, etc. – are decreasingly cogent. As this paper argued, two parallel forces are at play, weakening the analytical utility of the 'developing'/'developed' world division. The first is an increasing heterogeneity within the former category. 'Emerging countries' like China, India, Brazil, Mexico, South Africa and Indonesia are among the clearest challenges to the traditional separation of 'developed' and 'developing countries'. The second weakening force is the convergence of indicators among countries traditionally placed in different categories. One the one hand, a growing number of 'developing countries' have comparable (and sometimes better) indicators than their 'developed' counterparts. Second, problems formerly perceived as indicative of 'developing countries', such as poverty and high inequality, are increasingly experienced in 'developed' countries. Simply put, gaps *within* the 'developing country' category are growing, while those *between* 'developing' and 'developed' countries are narrowing.

Acknowledgment of this scenario has real-world consequences. The problem is much deeper than simply linguistic inadequacy or stigmatisation of 'lower' status. For example, to formulate policies which treat 'emerging countries' in the same manner as the world's 'least developed' is bound to be inefficient and a waste of both time and money. At the same time, 'the traditional grouping of developing countries into Low-, Middle- and Upper-income categories is becoming less relevant *as countries at all income levels seek support to sustain development progress*'.[63]

Nevertheless, this paper has also argued for understanding the paradoxical power of the 'developing country' label. Broadly speaking, the incorporation of a term as a core part of a national actor's identity can (and almost certainly will) increase the term's practical utility, even if real-world indicators signal otherwise. This is particularly evident in those instances where being labelled a 'developing country' confers privileges (or is perceived to). In such cases, those falling under the label will have a strong reason to defend its use. Thus, if such identification is perceived as yielding advantages for those who claim it, the logical consequence will be a defence of this status quo. The category's power derives from countries' embracing of 'developing' as a means of self-identification. One obvious final assessment is to approach categorisations (particularly dichotomies) with care. They mean different things to different actors and change over time. If said categorisations are used for legal purposes, then the level of attention should be much higher. Ultimately, the 'translation' of abstract ideas into concrete actions demands critical reflection in order to reduce locked-in inefficiencies.

Disclosure statement

No potential conflict of interest was reported by the author.

Notes on Contributor

Déborah B. L. Farias is a Lecturer at the University of New South Wales. Her research explores the role of 'emerging' countries in global governance from an multidisciplinary perspective. She has a Bachelor Degree in Law (University of Fortaleza – UNIFOR), a Bachelor Degree in Economy (Federal University of Ceará – UFC), an MA in International Relations (University of Brasilia – UnB) and a PhD in Political Science from the University of British Columbia (UBC). She is an expert in Brazilian domestic and foreign policy, having worked as a policy advisor for the State Government of Ceará (NE Brazil) and a trade analyst at the Consulate General of Brazil in Vancouver. Her newest book (Routledge – Development Series) is called *Aid and Technical Cooperation as a Foreign Policy Tool for Emerging Donors: the Case of Brazil.*

Notes

1. World Bank, *World Development Indicators*, iii (emphasis added). The subset of countries previously referred to as 'developing' was replaced by county groupings based only on geographical location.
2. Until 2016, the term 'developing countries' was ubiquitous in WDI publications. In 2014, for example, it appeared 50 times, and 116 times in 2015. In 2016, it was used 36 times (34 of which were in the re-reprint of the Sustainable Development Goals) and in 2017 the expression appeared only twice – once in a book title reference and another in the appendix. Therefore, the category has been made obsolete from WDI analyses.
3. World Bank, *World Bank Group Strategy,* 2.
4. Khokhar and Serajuddin, "Should We Continue to Use."

5. Fantom and Serajuddin, "The World Bank's Classification."
6. Albert Sauvy (1952) introduced the tripartite world division: First, Second and Third worlds. Yet, over the years – and especially after the end of the Cold War – this division has been increasingly treated as a dichotomy, with the "Second World" concept being obsolete.
7. Berger, "The End of the Third World?"; Berger, "After the Third World?"; Fialho and Van Bergeijk, "Proliferation of Developing Country Classifications"; Holm, "The End of the Third World?"; Muni, "The Third World"; Nielsen, "Classifications of Countries"; Solarz, "Birth and Development"; Solarz, "Third World"; Vaggi, "The Rich and the Poor"; Vázquez and Sumner, "Is the 'Developing World' Changing?"; Vázquez and Sumner, "Revisiting the Meaning of Development"; Zoellick, "The End of the Third World?"
8. Hurrell, "Hegemony, Liberalism and Global Order"; Kahler, "Rising Powers and Global Governance."
9. One can go even further back with China's self-perception as 'the Middle Kingdom' or antient Greek writings on barbarians.
10. Obregón, "The Civilized and the Uncivilized"; see also Sloan, "Civilized Nations."
11. Jennings and Watts, *Oppenheim's International Law,* 87–8.
12. Calvo, *Dictionnaire de Droit International,* 149 (emphasis added); see also Obregón, "The Civilized and the Uncivilized"; Sloan, "Civilized Nations."
13. Rist, *The History of Development,* 73; see also Solarz, *Language of Global Development*.
14. Balandier, "Le 'Tiers Monde'"; Helleiner, *Forgotten Foundations of Bretton Woods*; Horowitz, *Hemispheres North and South*; Rist, *The History of Development*; Sauvy, "Trois Monde, une Planet."
15. Rist, *The History of Development,* 74.
16. Unless otherwise noted, all data has been derived from the World Banks' statistical database. The Atlas method calculates countries' GDP based on exchange rates. As explained by the Bank, 'The Atlas method dampens variability caused by fluctuations in exchange rates, while the PPP method – which began to be calculated in 1990 – eliminates the effects of differences and changes in relative price levels, particularly non-tradables, and therefore provides a better overall measure of the real value of output produced by an economy compared to other economies' (http://data.worldbank.org/data-catalog/GNI-per-capita-Atlas-and-PPP-table). PPP provides a more appropriate method to compare income among countries, since exchange rates (as used in the Atlas method) are likely to result in systematic downward bias in GDP for lower income countries. See Fantom and Serajuddin, "The World Bank's Classification."
17. Nielsen, "Classifications of Countries," 1088 (emphasis in original).
18. Fialho and Van Bergeijk, "Proliferation of Developing Country Classifications."
19. Kanbur and Sumner, "Poor Countries or Poor People?"
20. Moss and Leo, "IDA at 65."
21. OECD, *Income Inequality.*
22. Milanovic, *Worlds Apart*; Quah, "Twin Peaks"; Shorrocks and Van der Hoeven, *Growth, Inequality, and Poverty.*
23. Remarks by US President Obama on Economic Mobility, 4 December 2013.
24. OECD, *Income Inequality.*
25. Ibid.
26. US Census, "Income, Poverty, and Health Insurance Coverage in the United States: 2014."
27. EUROSTAT, "The Risk of Poverty or Social Exclusion."
28. Dabla-Norris et al., *Causes and Consequences of Income Inequality.*
29. Credit Suisse, Media Release.
30. WTO, "Special and Differential Treatment," 2.
31. For example: 'Goal 12.1: Implement the 10-year framework of programmes on sustainable consumption and production, all countries taking action, with developed countries taking the lead, taking into account the development and capabilities of developing countries'.
32. David, "Clio and the Economics of QWERTY."
33. Hopf, *Social Construction of International Politics,* 2.
34. Smith, "Identities, Interests, and the Future," 302.
35. Onuf, *World of Our Making,* 6.

36. Rosenbaum and Tyler, "South–South Relations," 245.
37. G77 website, http://www.g77.org/doc/index.html
38. For example, Mexican President Salinas argued that being in the G77 was incompatible with belonging to the OECD and NAFTA. According to Gomez Bruera ("To Be or Not To Be," 239–40), this country's diplomats have sought to position the country 'as a mediator between industrialized and developing countries (…) and bridge between the South and the North', although this self-image appears to be merely aspirational, since it is not perceived as such by others.
39. Toye, "Assessing the G77," 1772–3.
40. DBL Farias, "Brazil: the Next OECD Member?"
41. It should be noted that many 'developing' countries have a long history of providing development assistance since the 1950s, albeit at much lower levels than what they have received; see Farias, *Aid and Technical Cooperation*.
42. *Daily Mail*, 29 December 2011.
43. Chin, "China as a 'Net Donor.'"
44. Woods, "Whose Aid?."
45. Farias, *Aid and Technical Cooperation*.
46. Chin and Quadir, "Introduction"; Grimm et al., "European Development Cooperation to 2020"; Kragelund, "The Return of Non-DAC Donors to Africa"; Mawdsley, *From Recipients to Donors*; Rowlands, *Emerging Donors in International Development Assistance*; Six, "The Rise of Postcolonial States as Donors"; UNGA, "Promotion of South–South Cooperation."
47. Chin and Thakur, "Will China Change the Rules of Global Order?"; Ikenberry, "The Rise of China"; Zakaria, "The Rise of Illiberal Democracy."
48. UN-SSC, n.a., emphasis added.
49. China-WTO, "China in the WTO."
50. China's role in Copenhagen talks 'important and constructive' (21 December 2009). http://www.fmprc.gov.cn/ce/cedk/eng/zdgx/t647125.htm
51. China says communication with other developing countries at Copenhagen summit transparent (20 December 2009). http://www.china-embassy.org/eng/xw/t646954.htm
52. Chin and Quadir, "Introduction," 494.
53. Barnett, "Culture, Strategy and Foreign Policy"; Kaarbo, "Foreign Policy Analysis"; Keyman, "Articulating Difference."
54. Barnett, "Culture, Strategy and Foreign Policy," 9.
55. IFC, "Overview" https://www.ifc.org/wps/wcm/connect/corp_ext_content/ifc_external_corporate_site/about+ifc_new
56. IFC, "How to Apply for Financing" https://www.ifc.org/wps/wcm/connect/corp_ext_content/ifc_external_corporate_site/solutions/how-to-apply-for-financing
57. UNFCCC, "Parties & Observers" https://unfccc.int/parties-observers
58. GATT, "Twelfth Session".
59. Orford, "Theorizing Free Trade."
60. GATT, Committee on the Legal and Institutional Framework. For more on Part IV's legal aspects, see Hudec, *Developing Countries in the GATT*.
61. Rolland, *Development at the WTO*.
62. Efstathopoulos, "Leadership in the WTO," 269.
63. World Bank, *World Bank Group Strategy,* 17 (emphasis added).

Bibliography

Balandier, Georges. "Le 'Tiers Monde': Sous-développement et développement". *Population* (1956): 737–741.

Barnett, Michael. "Culture, Strategy and Foreign Policy Change: Israel's Road to Oslo." *European Journal of International Relations* 5, no. 1 (1999): 5–36. doi:10.1177/1354066199005001001.

Berger, Mark T. "The End of the Third World?" *Third World Quarterly* 15, no. 2 (1994): 257–275. doi:10.1080/01436599408420379.

Berger, Mark T. "After the Third World? History, Destiny and the Fate of Third Worldism." *Third World Quarterly* 25, no. 1 (2004): 9–39. doi:10.1080/0143659042000185318.
Calvo, Carlos. *Dictionnaire de Droit International Public et privé*. Vol. 1. Paris: Puttkammer & Mühlbrecht, 1885.
Chin, Gregory T. "China as a 'Net Donor': Tracking Dollars and Sense." *Cambridge Review of International Affairs* 25, no. 4 (2012): 579–603. doi:10.1080/09557571.2012.744641.
Chin, Gregory, and Fahimul Quadir. "Introduction: Rising States, Rising Donors and the Global Aid Regime." *Cambridge Review of International Affairs* 25, no. 4 (2012): 493–506. doi:10.1080/09557571.2012.744642.
Chin, Gregory, and Ramesh Thakur. "Will China Change the Rules of Global Order?" *The Washington Quarterly* 33, no. 4 (2010): 119–138. doi:10.1080/0163660X.2010.516145.
China-WTO – Permanent Mission of China to the WTO. 2011. "China in the WTO: Past, Present and Future". https://www.wto.org/english/thewto_e/acc_e/s7lu_e.pdf
Credit Suisse. 2015, Oct 13. Media Release: "Credit Suisse: Global Middle-Class Net Worth Doubled since 2000 to USD 80.7 Trillion, 32% of Global Wealth". https://www.credit-suisse.com/media/mediarelease-assets/pdf/2015/10/gwr-2015-global-press-release.pdf
Dabla-Norris, Era, Kalpana Kochhar, Nujin Suphaphiphat, Frantisek Ricka, and Evridiki Tsounta. *Causes and Consequences of Income Inequality: A Global Perspective*. Washington, DC: International Monetary Fund, 2015. doi:10.5089/9781513555188.006.
Daily, Mail. "It's nuts! Britain is STILL giving aid to Brazil – even though it's richer than we are." 2011, Dec 19, London.
David, Paul A. "Clio and the Economics of QWERTY." *The American economic review* 75, no. 2 (1985): 332–337.
DBL Farias. "Brazil: the Next OECD Member?" *Rising Powers in Global Governance* (2 May 2017), http://risingpowersproject.com/brazil-next-oecd-member/
EUROSTAT. *The Risk of Poverty or Social Exclusion - Dataset*. https://ec.europa.eu/eurostat/web/products-datasets/-/sdg_01_10
Efstathopoulos, Charalampos. "Leadership in the WTO: Brazil, India and the Doha Development Agenda." *Cambridge Review of International Affairs* 25, no. 2 (2012): 269–293. doi:10.1080/09557571.2012.678294.
Farias, Deborah BL. *Aid and Technical Coooperation as a Foreign Policy Tool for Emerging Donors: the Case of Brazil*. London: Routledge, 2017.
Fantom, Niel, and Umar Serajuddin. "*The World Bank's Classification of Countries by Income*." World Bank Group, Development Economics Data Group, Policy Research Working Paper 7528. Washington DC: World Bank, 2016.
Fialho, Djalita, and Peter AG Van Bergeijk. "The Proliferation of Developing Country Classifications." *The Journal of Development Studies* 53, no. 1 (2017): 99–115. doi:10.1080/00220388.2016.1178383.
GATT. Twelfth Session of the Contracting Parties. Communiqué: Decision to Appoint a Panel of Experts to Examine Certain Trends in International Trade. Geneva, 1957.
GATT. 1964, Apr 13. Committee on the Legal and Institutional Framework of GATT in relation to Less-Developed Countries. L/2195/Rev.1.
Gómez Bruera, Hernán F. "To Be or Not To Be: Has Mexico Got What It Takes To Be An Emerging Power?" *South African Journal of International Affairs* 22, no. 2 (2015): 227–248. doi:10.1080/10220461.2015.1053978.
Grimm, Sven, John Humphrey, Erik Lundsgaarde, and S. De Souza. *"European Development Cooperation to 2020: Challenges by New Actors in International Development*." Bonn: European Association of Development Research and Training Institutes (EDC 2020 Working Paper 4), 2009.
Helleiner, Eric. *Forgotten Foundations of Bretton Woods: International Development and the Making of the Postwar Order*. New York: Cornell University Press, 2014.
Holm, Hans-Henrik. "The End of the Third World?." *Journal of Peace Research* 27, no. 1 (1990): 1–7. doi:10.1177/0022343390027001001.
Hopf, Ted. *Social Construction of International Politics: Identities & Foreign Policies, Moscow, 1955 and 1999*. New York: Cornell University Press, 2002.

Horowitz, David. *Hemispheres North and South: Economic Disparity Among Nations*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins Press, 1966.
Hudec, Robert E. *Developing Countries in the GATT Legal System*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010.
Hurrell, Andrew. "Hegemony, Liberalism and Global Order: What Space for Would-Be Great Powers?" *International Affairs* 82, no. 1 (2006): 1–19. doi:10.1111/j.1468-2346.2006.00512.x.
Ikenberry, G. John. "The Rise of China and the Future of the West: Can the Liberal System Survive?" *Foreign Affairs* (2008): 23–37.
Jennings, Robert Yewdall, and Arthur Watts. *Oppenheim's International Law*. London: Longman, 1996.
Kaarbo, Juliet. "Foreign Policy Analysis in the Twenty-First Century: Back to Comparison, Forward to Identity and Ideas." *International Studies Review* 5, no. 2 (2003): 155–202. doi:10.1111/1521-9488.5020012.
Kahler, Miles. "Rising Powers and Global Governance: Negotiating Change in a Resilient Status Quo." *International Affairs* 89, no. 3 (2013): 711–729. doi:10.1111/1468-2346.12041.
Kanbur, Ravi, and Andy Sumner. "Poor Countries or Poor People? Development Assistance and the New Geography of Global Poverty." *Journal of International Development* 24, no. 6 (2012): 686–695. doi:10.1002/jid.2861.
Keyman, E. Fuat. "Articulating Difference: The Problem of the Other in International Political Economy." *Review of International Political Economy* 2, no. 1 (1995): 70–95. doi:10.1080/09692299508434310.
Khokhar, Tariq, and Umar Serajuddin. 2015. "Should we continue to use the term 'developing world'?". *World Bank – The Data Blog*, November 11. http://blogs.worldbank.org/opendata/should-we-continue-use-term-developing-world
Kragelund, Peter. "The Return of Non-DAC Donors to Africa: New Prospects for African Development?" *Development Policy Review* 26, no. 5 (2008): 555–584. doi:10.1111/j.1467-7679.2008.00423.x.
Mawdsley, Emma. *From Recipients to Donors: Emerging Powers and the Changing Development Landscape*. London: Zed Books, 2012.
Milanovic, Branko. *Worlds Apart: Measuring International and Global Inequality*. Princeton University Press, 2011.
Moss, Todd J., and Benjamin Leo. *"IDA at 65: Heading toward Retirement or a Fragile Lease on Life?" Center for Global Development Working Paper*, 246, 2011.
Muni, S. D. "The Third World: concept and controversy." *Third World Quarterly* 1, no. 3 (1979): 119–128. doi:10.1080/01436597908419446.
Nielsen, L. *"Classifications of Countries Based on Their Level of Development: How it is Done and How it Could be Done." IMF Working Paper*, 2011: 1–45. doi:10.5089/9781455216789.001.
Obregón, Liliana. "The Civilized and the Uncivilized." In *The Oxford Handbook of the History of International Law*, edited by Bardo Fassbender and Anne Peters, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011.
OECD. *Income Inequality: The Gap between Rich and Poor*. Paris: OECD, 2015.
Onuf, Nicholas. *World of our Making*. London: Routledge, 2012.
Orford, Anne. "Theorizing Free Trade". In *The Oxford Handbook of the Theory of International Law*, edited by Anne Orford, Florian Hoffman, and Martin Clark. Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016.
Quah, Danny T. "Twin Peaks: Growth and Convergence in Models of Distribution Dynamics." *The Economic Journal* 106, no. 437 (1996): 1045–1055. doi:10.2307/2235377.
Rist, Gilbert. *The History of Development: from Western Origins to Global Faith*. London: Zed Books, 2002 [1997].
Rolland, Sonia. *Development at the WTO*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2012.
Rosenbaum, H. Jon, and William G. Tyler. "South–South Relations: The Economic and Political Content of Interactions Among Developing Countries." *International Organization* 29, no. 1 (1975): 243–274. doi:10.1017/S0020818300017951.
Rowlands, Dane. *Emerging Donors in International Development Assistance: A Synthesis Report*. Canada: International Development Research Center (IDRC), 2008. http://publicwebsite.idrc.ca/EN/Documents/12447280141Synthesis_Report.pdf
Sauvy, Albert. "Trois Monde, une Planet". *L'Observateur* 118 (1952).

Shorrocks, Anthony, and Rolph Van der Hoeven. *Growth, Inequality, and Poverty: Prospects for Pro-Poor Economic Development*. Oxford: Oxford University Press on Demand, 2004.
Six, Clemens. "The Rise of Postcolonial States as Donors: A Challenge to the Development Paradigm?" *Third World Quarterly* 30, no. 6 (2009): 1103–1121. doi:10.1080/01436590903037366.
Sloan, James. "Civilized Nations." In *Max Planck Encyclopedia of Public International Law*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011. http://opil.ouplaw.com/home/EPIL
Smith, Rogers M. "Identities, Interests, and the Future of Political Science." *Perspectives on Politics* 2, no. 2 (2004): 301–312.
Solarz, Marcin Wojciech. "'Third World': The 60th Anniversary of a Concept That Changed History." *Third World Quarterly* 33, no. 9 (2012): 1561–1573. doi:10.1080/01436597.2012.720828.
Solarz, Marcin Wojciech. *The Language of Global Development: A Misleading Geography*. New York: Routledge, 2014.
Solarz, Marcin Wojciech. "The Birth and Development of the Language of Global Development in Light of trends in Global Population, International Politics, Economics and Globalization." *Third World Quarterly* 38, no. 8 (2017): 1753–1766. doi:10.1080/01436597.2016.1257910.
Toye, John. "Assessing the G77: 50 Years After UNCTAD and 40 Years after the NIEO." *Third World Quarterly* 35, no. 10 (2014): 1759–1774.
UNGA – United Nations General Assembly. "Promotion of South–South Cooperation for development: a thirty-year perspective – Report of the Secretary-General", A/64/504, October 27, 2009.
UN-SSC – UN Office for South–South Cooperation. (n.a.). China - National Policy/Legislative Instruments. http://ssc.undp.org/content/ssc/national_dg_space/China/policy.html
US Census. "Income, Poverty and Health Insurance Coverage in the United States: 2014". Washington DC, 2014. https://www.census.gov/newsroom/press-releases/2015/cb15-157.html
Vaggi, Gianni. "The Rich and The Poor: A Note on Countries' Classification." *PSL Quarterly Review* 70, no. 280 (2017): 59–82.
Vázquez, Sergio Tezanos, and Andy Sumner. "Is the 'Developing World' Changing? A Dynamic and Multidimensional Taxonomy of Developing Countries." *The European Journal of Development Research* 28, no. 5 (2016): 847–874. doi:10.1057/ejdr.2015.57.
Vázquez, Sergio Tezanos, and Andy Sumner. "Revisiting the Meaning of Development: A Multidimensional Taxonomy of Developing Countries." *Journal of Development Studies* 49, no. 12 (2013): 1728–1745. doi:10.1080/00220388.2013.822071.
Woods, Ngaire. "Whose Aid? Whose Influence? China, Emerging Donors and The Silent Revolution in Development Assistance." *International Affairs* 84, no. 6 (2008): 1205–1221. doi:10.1111/j.1468-2346.2008.00765.x.
World Bank. *World Bank Group Strategy*. Washington DC: World Bank, 2014.
World Bank. *World Development Indicators*. Washington DC: World Bank, 2016.
WTO – World Trade Organization. "Special and Differential Treatment Provisions in WTO Agreements and Decisions". Committee on Trade and Development, WT/COMTD/W/196, 2013, June 14.
Zakaria, Fareed. "The Rise of Illiberal Democracy." *Foreign Affairs* 76, no. 6 (1997): 22–43. doi:10.2307/20048274.
Zoellick, Robert. "The End of the Third World? Modernizing Multilateralism for a Multipolar World", Speech Delivered at Woodrow Wilson Center for International Scholars on April 14, 2010.